II. Greenbelt Towns or Suburbs?: Creating the American Metropolis

In America, urban planning, which had first been conceptualized and practiced by Frederick Law Olmsted and Calvert Vaux as a means of guiding and shaping metropolitan growth around a green armature of parks and parkways, had become by the end of the nineteenth century an exercise in Beaux-Arts Neoclassical monumentalism. As we saw in the previous chapter, only Washington, D.C., which already had in place its Neoclassical urban framework, achieved a comprehensive urban redesign at this time. Elsewhere pragmatic city leaders settled for a few Beaux-Arts monuments, buildings, and squares. The second generation of urban planners in America, which included Frederick Law Olmsted, Jr., who had been a major participant in the McMillan Commission's report outlining Washington's aggrandizement as a monumental city, gradually abandoned the ideals of the City Beautiful for what has been termed the City Functional, the City Practical, and sometimes the City Social. Although socialism never became as strong a force in America as in Europe, there were some who hoped to place the values of society as a whole above those of Darwinian capitalist competition. Ebenezer Howard's influential garden cities movement helped define economic well-being in social, rather than mere monetary, terms. But any broadening of its aims would require large-scale social and economic reform backed by political policy.

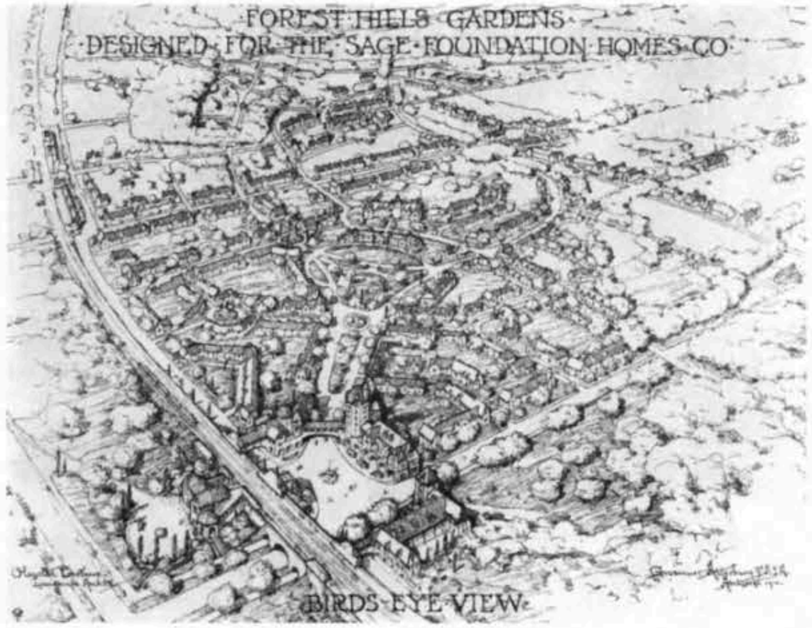
American Visionaries

The generation of visionary reformers that came of age during World War I in America grasped just how profoundly industrialization was transforming society. The economic theories of Henry George and Thorstein Veblen influenced and supported their belief that land profits should be directed toward the common good and that land planning should rationally partner nature with engineering and technology to provide livable communities. Some recoiled from the impending future of vastly enlarged cities and were uneasy with the purely architectural solutions of European modernists like Le Corbusier, while others embraced skyscraper-scale metropolitanism. Both decentralists and metropolitanists felt that regional planning involving vast engineering projects was now a necessity and that industrial technology provided the means of harnessing nature's resources for human ends. As planners conceived the new towns and suburbs, the highways and bridges, and the hydroelectric dams and transmission lines that would create an entirely new urban scale, social reformers drew up their plans for remedying the ills of existing cities. Recreation as a means of acculturation for immigrant groups gave birth to the playground movement, and in the early years of the twentieth century the recreation director became a certified professional along with the social worker.

12.20. Plan for Yorkship Village, now Fairview, Camden, New Jersey, by Frederick Lee Ackerman. 1918. Ackerman, who was assisted by Henry Wright, focused his plan with Beaux-Arts radials and Picturesque curvilinear roads upon a village green. A system of footpaths separated pedestrian from vehicular traffic, and varied setbacks for the neo-Georgian two- and three-story row, twin, and triplex houses illustrate the designers' attention to streetscape.

World War I provided urban planners with a convenient link to the social reform agenda of the Progressive Era as well as a means of transferring British garden city and regional planning ideals to the United States, where the federal government sponsored villages to house war-industry workers during World War I. Frederick Law Olmsted, Jr., served as chief of design for the United States Housing Corporation, and architect and planner Henry Wright (1878–1936) was one of three designers hired by the government-sponsored Emergency Fleet Corporation headed by architect Frederick Lee Ackerman (1878–1950), to plan Yorkship Village (1918), now Fairview, New Jersey (fig. 12.20). The plan was based upon the neighborhood-unit outlined of Clarence Perry (1872–1944), a sociologist-planner who learned the values of good community design firsthand as a resident of Forest Hills Gardens.

Partly inspired by examples of German garden cities, such as Krupp and Essen, Forest Hills Gardens in Queens, New York, was a garden suburb in the Picturesque tradition. The Russell Sage Foundation, the project's sponsor, intended it to be a cozy domestic landscape built according to the latest "scientific principles" of town planning, an educational demonstration to developers of the profitability of an architecturally integrated, exclusively residential community built for middle-class homeowners. Here, in 1909, Olmsted, Jr., laid out three wide principal roads for through traffic and a series of gently winding, narrow residential streets (fig. 12.21). By paying close attention to the smallest details of design, including the mellow reddish tint of stucco and sidewalk cement,



12.21. Bird's-Eye View of Forest Hills Gardens, Queens, New York, designed by Frederick Law Olmsted, Jr., and Grosvenor Atterbury. 1909

the color and size of brick, which looked aged, not new, and the contrasting effect of white trim and dark, creosote-coated oak timbers, architect Grosvenor Atterbury gave the community's structures a harmonious Gothic-Tudor or German-Tudor, pseudomedieval appearance. Though quaintly styled, the planned community was innovative in promoting neighborly living in attached row and two-family houses. These were grouped together so that residents shared front lawns and backyards. There were conventional single-family houses as well. Although Olmsted's design failed to account for the growing trend in automobile ownership, the generously planted curving streets and the attractively landscaped common ground—including a central mall leading to Flagpole Green—and the mellow picturesqueness of Atterbury's architecture made this rail- and, later, subway-served garden suburb an especially desirable place to live.

Perry saw the neighborhood unit as a means of re-creating the kind of environment conducive to the face-to-face relationships that impersonal big cities were perceived to be destroying. From his Forest Hills Gardens experience he developed a demographic-based formula that provided necessary educational, recreational, and service facilities based on convenient walking radii. Using this model for Yorkship Village, he specified that houses were to be located within a half mile of the local elementary school and its playground and no more than a quarter mile distant from local shops, which would be at the juncture of contiguous neighborhood units. A landscaped village-green-type square, complete with flagpole such as the one found in Forest Hills Gardens, would serve as the focal point for community institutions.

The neighborly, greenbelt-buffered community of low-cost housing approximating Perry's ideal at Yorkship Village was sufficiently attractive to disturb some congressmen who felt that this government-sponsored development reflected badly upon the nation's private housing industry. As a result, Congress passed legislation mandating that wartime workers' villages be auctioned for sale after the emergency was over, thus curtailing the experiment in public ownership, in the manner of Howard's garden city, based on financial management structured to maintain low rents and turn profits back into community improvements.

The Regional Planning Association of America

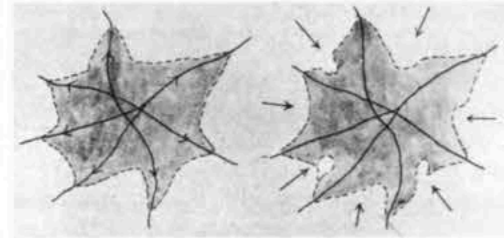
Throughout the first half of the twentieth century, social philosopher, architectural critic, and urban historian Lewis Mumford (1915–1990) was America's most passionate and articulate proponent of metropolitan decentralization and the creation of new towns. To understand Mumford's planning philosophy and that of his friends and colleagues who formed the Regional Planning Association of America, we must first examine the life and work of Mumford's adopted mentor, Patrick Geddes (1854–1932). The Scottish biologist, sociologist, professor, and pioneer of regional-scale urban planning was the author of *Cities in Evolution* (1915). Geddes's views were influenced by the science of geography, the study of the earth's topography and resources in relation to human settlement and economic activity. He read the work of pioneers in this field: Élisée Reclus (1830–1905), the French anarchist, geographer, and author of the nineteen-volume *La Nouvelle Géographie universelle, la terre et les hommes* (1875–94), and Paul Vidal de la Blache (1845–1918), professor of geography in Paris, editor of the periodical *Annales de géographie*, and author of *Atlas général; histoire et géographie*, (1894). Geddes was also indebted to the ideas of Frédéric Le Play (1806–1882), the French mining engineer, sociologist, and author of *La Réforme sociale en France* (1887). Le Play placed the family rather than the state at the center of the social structure.

Geddes realized that aerial perspective—a prerogative that tall buildings and later airplanes conferred on twentieth-century denizens—was a boon for planners in a mass society in which large industrial cities were becoming the norm. Aerial views allowed one to conceive cities whole and to more easily envision urbanism at a metropolitan scale. To see far and wide from on high the shapes of Earth—its mountains, valleys, winding river courses, and coastlines, as well as the houses, roads, bridges, and other works of human beings—fostered regionalism. The panoramas thus offered were an enormous aid to the geographer, demographer, and urban reformer. As we saw in Chapter Ten, the meaning of the Eiffel Tower lay both in its demonstration of the engineering and building technologies of structural steel and in the fact that it allowed visitors to grasp Paris entire, while on their vertiginous descent the city was turned into a kaleidoscope of striking new perspectives.[9]

For Geddes, historical information about a city's past could also become comprehensible as, from an elevated perspective, streets and buildings coalesced into patterns describing its habitation in different periods of time. To translate the concept of planning at a regional scale into a graphic plan, Geddes set up his Outlook Tower, equipped with a camera obscura, on the roof of a building at the end of the Royal Mile in Edinburgh, where he could physically survey the town and its surrounding river basin. He urged what he termed *synoptic* vision, "a seeing of the city, and this as a whole; like Athens from its Acropolis, like city and Acropolis together . . . from hill-top and from sea."[10] Obviously, more was needed than an overview from an aerie such as the Outlook Tower in order to understand Edinburgh or any other city or region. Geddes advocated what he termed the "Valley Survey" and the "City Survey" to study local landscapes in all their physical, social, economic, and historical dimensions. He aimed to eliminate the artificial separation between town and country.

Geddes thought in temporal as well as spatial terms. Evolutionary biology provided a popular nineteenth-century metaphor for cultural transit, and like others of his day, he adopted the notion of cities and civilizations going from dawn to noon to sunset, or from birth to maturity to decline. He saw urbanism as a socially organic process associated with increasing occupational specialization and organizational complexity. In this fashion he charted the growth of cities in successive stages, from "polis" to "metropolis" to "megalopolis" and, finally, to "necropolis." He also drew a distinction between "paleotechnic" and "neotechnic" societies. The former denoted the early Industrial Age with its workers living in polluted, crowded, coal-burning towns, their lives directed "toward money wages instead of Vital Budget."[11] The latter possessed new sources of power, including hydroelectricity, which would make possible decentralization of populations and the decongestion of existing industrial centers. The cities that were already spreading and coalescing into conurbations were prime candidates for Geddes's recommended "Regional Survey." At the very least, on sanitary grounds and to assure a pure water supply, sensible planning was mandated.

Geddes called the paleotechnic economic order "Kakotopia," a market-driven heedless scramble for profits, whereas the neotechnic order he labeled



12.22. Diagram by Patrick Geddes from *Cities in Evolution* (1915) showing the desirability of reversing unchecked growth and infilling of green space as cities spread outward along the lines of transportation corridors

"Eutopia, . . . a place of effective health and well-being, even of glorious and in its way unprecedented beauty, renewing and rivaling the best achievements of the past."[12] Geddes clearly had in mind the new garden cities and planned communities then being built in England, which, following Howard's prescription, extended industrial prosperity to working-class families. He also wanted to reverse the dynamic of the metropolitan organism so that instead of the city's spreading into the country along rail and highway lines and then amorphously infilling the land in between, the country could gain on the city by wedging itself inward in the form of nature preserves (fig. 12.22). Geddes admired the urban parks that had made the nineteenth-century city a greener place, but he saw the need for forestry—"no mere tree-cropping, but sylviculture, arboriculture too, and park-making at its greatest and best"[13]—as creating opportunities for real freedom in nature unavailable in the metropolitan parks with their fences and palings and their rules designed to maintain decorum befitting the grounds of a mansion.

The concept of the city as a complex and evolving social organism captivated the imagination of the young Mumford, who, with his superior and more disciplined literary gifts, elaborated Geddes's message and carried his ideological influence to an American audience in tones that echoed the Scot's fervently moral voice. Geddes's evolutionary categorization prompted Mumford in his prejudice against "megalopolis," the city grown gargantuan or what we today call "Spread City." In adopting Geddes as his mentor, Mumford distanced himself from European modernism, promoting instead planning concepts derived from Howard and the village-inspired British new towns. On the whole, architects and planners in America aimed to give homeowners and tenants a more personal experience of nature and a more community-focused environment than that provided by Le Corbusier's broad, geometric grid of superblocks with regularly spaced, identical towers. Their site planning bore traces of both the Picturesque and Beaux-Arts styles in which they had been trained, although they eschewed Neoclassical architecture with its costly materials and ornament in favor of a simpler building vocabulary more suited to their aim of providing affordable housing and functional communities. Thus,

Digitized by Google
Original from
UNIVERSITY OF MICHIGAN

they usually employed brick with white trim and often evoked American Colonial vernacular forms in their neo-Georgian buildings and village greens.

In 1922, Mumford met the Beaux-Arts-trained architect Clarence Stein (1882–1975), who shared his ideal of planning according to Geddes's regional survey methods. With the moral and financial support of developer Alexander Bing (1878–1959), who added business sense to this agenda, they hoped to demonstrate the concept and means of providing better living conditions for a wider social range than had been possible previously. For Stein, this meant improved housing for modest-income families in environmentally sound communities in which schools, shops, and parks were within the easy walking radii recommended by Perry.

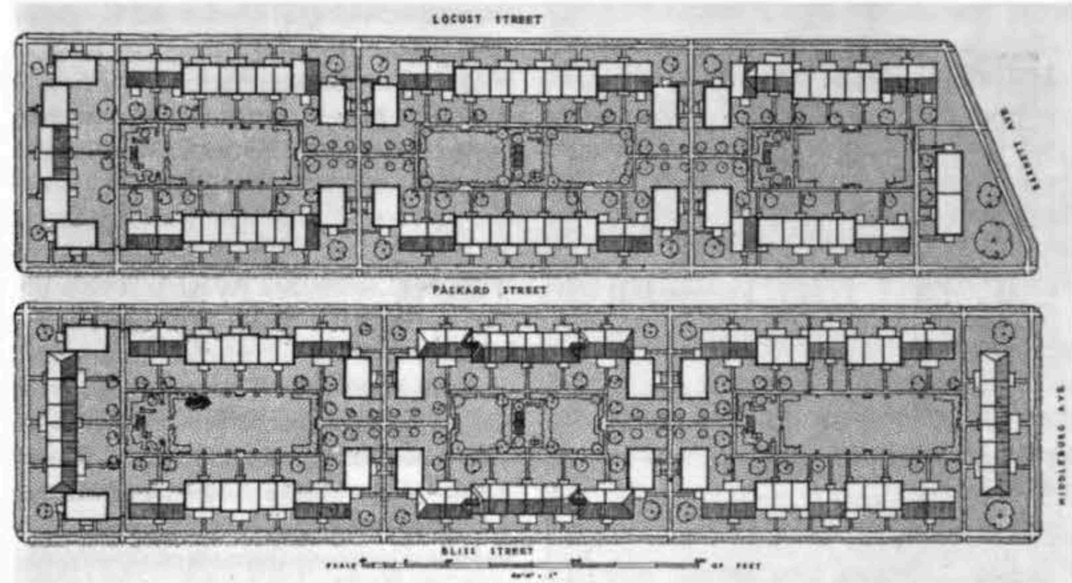
Charles Harris Whitaker (1872–1938), editor of the *Journal of the American Institute of Architects* (JAIA), shared the Progressive Era reform agenda of these two men. He sought to expand the public concerns of architects beyond the City Beautiful movement toward a social-service orientation that addressed more fundamental needs than ennobling the urban landscape with monuments symbolizing civic pride. Benton MacKaye (1879–1975), a trained forester, an environmentalist, and the father of the Appalachian Trail, reinforced the group's regional and conservationist perspectives. In 1923, with a handful of others, they formed the Regional Planning Association of America (RPAA).

A native of Shirley, Massachusetts, MacKaye felt that the New England town with its compact settlement around a village green and proximity to rural nature offered the best possible model for regional urbanism. He viewed with horror the side effects of the new automobile culture on the landscape, as tacky roadside stands, billboards, and filling stations sprang up along rural highways, blighting the natural scenery as well as graceful old towns. He conceived the creation of the "townless highway," his term for the limited-access throughway that bypassed urban centers and eliminated grade crossings with underpasses. New towns, too, would benefit from being constructed away from, yet in reasonable proximity to, this special-purpose artery. Further, the visionary MacKaye was a proponent of Giant Power, as he and other regionalists called their idea for transmitting electricity via high-voltage lines from coal- and water-powered stations located at mines and dams. He saw the Tennessee Valley Authority, the New Deal program for damming the Tennessee River to harness hydroelectric power for distribution throughout the region, as an administrative model and means for channeling urban growth into discrete, park-surrounded cities.

Perhaps the most effective contribution of the RPAA—in addition to the body of literature Mumford produced—was the demonstration of new principles for community planning by the City Housing Corporation. The socially motivated real-estate developer and RPAA member Alexander Bing set up this limited-dividend company in order to build Sunnyside Gardens (1924) in the Borough of Queens, New York, and Radburn (1928) in the Borough of Fairlawn, New Jersey. In the absence of the government support that helped to underwrite later housing programs, the City Housing Corporation was a small, privately capitalized instrument designed to demonstrate the benefits of regional planning and the value of limited-dividend financing in returning a fixed profit to investors while also funding further community improvements.

However modest the scale of Sunnyside and Radburn, the entire RPAA fraternity applied assiduous attention and deep moral commitment to their design and building. Clarence Stein, planner and architect of these projects, collaborated with his partner, Henry Wright, as well as with Frederick Lee Ackerman, the architect of their houses. All three men were founding members of RPAA. Ackerman and Wright brought to bear their experience from Yorkship Village and other wartime emergency housing developments and with it their commitment to Clarence Perry's neighborhood unit as the fundamental community building block. As editor and writer, Whitaker and Mumford broadcast the philosophy of regional planning pioneered at Sunnyside and Radburn. Further, Mumford and his family took up residence in Sunnyside Gardens, remaining there for eleven years. MacKaye bolstered the other RPAA members' belief in technology as a powerful tool for social improvement and strengthened their commitment to natural areas preservation.

In 1924, on property Bing purchased from the Long Island Railroad to the east of Forest Hills in Sunnyside, Queens, Stein and Wright applied Perry's neighborhood-unit principles to the planning of Sunnyside Gardens. Ackerman served as architect for the blocks of houses, and Marjorie Sewell Cautley was hired as the project's landscape architect. Within the constraints of the preexisting grid, the design team developed a plan that maximized the amount of open space for private gardens, public greenery, and recreational commons, also providing an internal pedestrian circulation system for each block (fig. 12.23). Thus, their plan abandoned private property lot lines in favor of row houses with small individual backyards that faced a large communal parklike space where children could play. The Sunnyside commons were in time abandoned as land was sold to adjacent



12.23. Plan of two blocks with inner courts, Sunnyside Gardens, Queens, New York, designed by Clarence Stein and Henry Wright. 1926

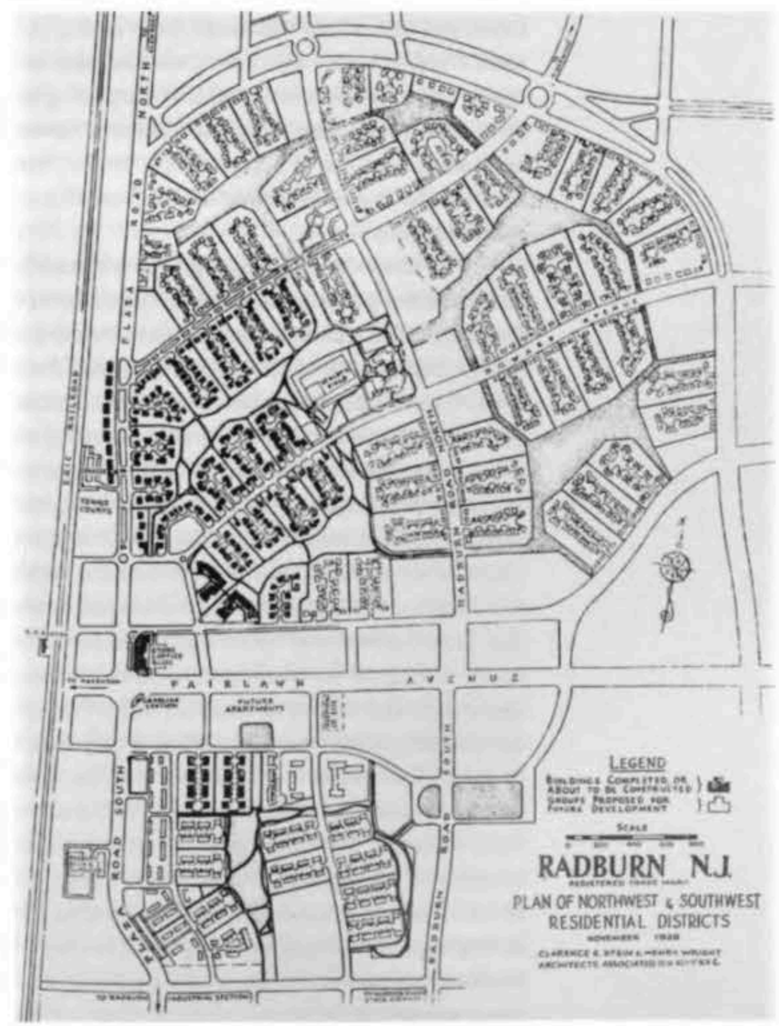
homeowners, who divided most of the once-shared landscape into individual parcels. But this early garden suburb was an important foundation for the work of Stein and Wright at Radburn, New Jersey, and for such later new towns as Reston, Virginia.

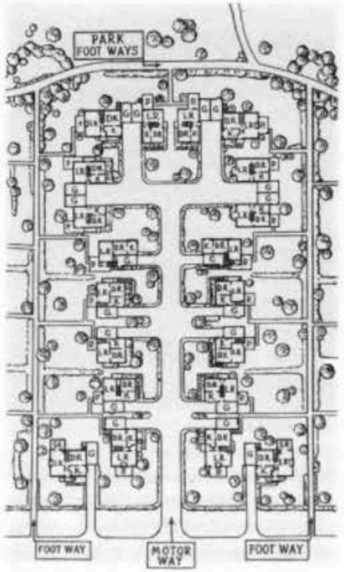
Radburn, undertaken as a successor to Sunnyside Gardens, carried the garden-city concept forward. The community was billed as a New Town for the Motor Age. As Stein explained in *Toward New Towns for America* (1957), "We believed thoroughly in green belts and towns of a limited size planned for work as well as living. We did not fully recognize that our main interest after our Sunnyside experience had been transferred to a more pressing need, that of a town in which people could live peacefully with the automobile—or rather in spite of it."[14] Traffic engineers soon became important professionals within the new fields of city planning and municipal administration.

The Radburn Idea was embodied in a layout that reduced the length of the roadway to the minimum necessary for automobile access, while providing abundant commonly held open space and a system of circulation routes modeled after the one developed by Olmsted and Vaux in Central Park (figs. 12.24, 12.25). To achieve this, Stein and Wright developed within the town's principal streets the superblock of 35 to 50 acres, a larger and more irregularly shaped area than that of a traditional city block. The savings associated with fewer linear feet of roadway made the provision of parkland cost-effective. Houses were turned so that their living rooms and bedrooms faced not the street but the green commons, which was continuous throughout the community.

Radburn was to have had a band of industrial development adjacent to the Erie Railroad lines and a new express highway. Then, in 1929, when the first families moved into Radburn, the nation was plunged into the Great Depression. Industry did not materialize, and home buying and home building everywhere came to a halt. Banks foreclosed the mortgages of some Radburn residents, and only two superblocks were completed. Still, Radburn as an idea lived on. In the United States it served as a direct model for the

Below: 12.24. Plan of residential districts, Radburn, New Jersey, by Clarence Stein and Henry Wright. 1929





12.25. Plan of a single residential cul-de-sac, Radburn. The 18- to 20-foot-wide service road lead to the garages and service areas of fifteen to twenty homes. These face a commons, the green interior portion of a superblock. Foot ways connect residents to parks and athletic facilities.

Greenbelt Towns (Greenbelt, Maryland; Greenhills, Ohio; and Greendale, Wisconsin) built during President Franklin Roosevelt's New Deal administration under the economist Rexford Guy Tugwell (1891–1979), the ardent disciple of Ebenezer Howard and member of the U. S. president's "Brain Trust" who served as administrator of the Resettlement Administration.

The idea of rational planning by a diversified consortium of professional disciplines represented by the most skilled technical experts became something of an article of faith by the 1920s, even in the democratic United States with its free-market economy. The authoritarianism implicit in such planning was more acceptable than it would be today. The prevailing notion was that a new social order was being born and that modern technology in the service of democratic values could produce a more humane society and a higher standard of living for almost all classes. The United States was becoming a manufacturing titan, adding to its abundant natural resources unprecedented industrial wealth. Under these circumstances, people were optimistic that the solutions to social and physical problems could be found through financing and technical expertise, and they were willing to trust those in power to provide the benefits of modernity to society as a whole. The notion of an enlightened and beneficient mastermind arranging a total environment geared to the new working patterns and rising living standards of the times was an attractive one as people grappled with the rapid technological advances and complexity of modern society. In America as well as in Europe, certain architects were beginning to think of themselves as suited for this role, none more so than Frank Lloyd Wright, who well understood that the fundamental gift of the motor age was mobility.

Frank Lloyd Wright's Usonian Vision for Broadacre City

The members of RPAA, Peter Kropotkin, and H. G. Wells had early intuited one of the most important aspects of modernity: ease of movement and the consequent liberation from being bound in place. Similarly, the architect Frank Lloyd Wright (1869–1959) saw decentralization as a positive force for improving the human condition. Unlike the RPAA group or the builders in the newly created Soviet Union, Wright did not promote a communal vision but one that celebrated individual freedom in the tradition of the transcendentalists Ralph Waldo Emerson, Henry David Thoreau, and Walt Whitman. He saw how mass automobile ownership, widespread communications enabled by radio, telegraph, and telephone, and easily distributed electric power could make possible a complete redistribution of population. At least in America with its abundance of developable land, it was now theoretically possible for people to live at very low densities, with each family occupying an entire acre. Wright also saw how standardization of industrial production creating inexpensive new building technologies and utilities construction could foster large-scale, low-density urbanization. According to his Usonian Vision, as he called his utopian scheme for Broadacre City, instead of living in a hive of nearly identical apartments or garden-city row houses, residents would occupy distinctive freestanding houses. Wright's anti-urban utopia was thus completely unlike that of Le Corbusier or the planners of Radburn except in its willing embrace of great systems of conveyance—distribution lines for power and utilities and transportation corridors for the movement of people and goods.

Publication of Wright's scheme for Broadacre City probably furthered his reputation as an architectural genius, but his proposal had little chance of being realized. In the United States, perhaps more than in other countries, the kind of civic leadership and initiative Tocqueville had observed a century earlier defied authoritarian visions and singular solutions. Planning, particularly on a regional scale, to be successful, necessitated close cooperation between the public and private sectors, and men such as Lewis Mumford and Frank Lloyd Wright were not temperamentally equipped to struggle and compromise within the political arena in order to advance a par-

tial agenda. Nor were they willing to forsake an ideal premised upon low-density settlement in garden cities or on broad acres for one that served merely to guide the already forceful trend toward metropolitanism. Nowhere in the 1920s and 1930s were the implications of this dichotomy more evident than in the fast-growing counties surrounding New York City.

The Regional Plan for New York

In contrast to Mumford and his fellow members of the Regional Planning Association of America, the Regional Plan Association (RPA) proposed no radical agenda of garden-city decentralization. This group instead undertook the preparation of a plan to *guide* the growth of metropolitan New York City, which was rapidly spawning suburban development in several counties of the tri-state (New York, New Jersey, and Connecticut) region surrounding the five boroughs that constitute the incorporated city. Unlike the RPAA garden-city idealists who wished to retard metropolitan growth and foster discrete urban communities set well apart and separated by open space, the founders of the RPA recognized the momentum for cities to grow into massive regional complexes.[15] Planning, in their view, was essential to predict statistically, then guide rationally, not rearrange, this growth. Underlying the new urban scale they envisioned was a constant increase in automobile ownership, opening up the possibility of ever-expanding rings of residential settlement and the birth of the commuter society. Their metropolitan vision also implied increased density at the urban core with office skyscrapers thrusting ever higher into the air.

The Regional Plan Association, though not yet known by that name, had its beginning in 1921. That year Charles Dyer Norton (1871–1923), a trustee of the Russell Sage Foundation, the philanthropic fund that had sponsored Forest Hills Gardens, helped initiate the preparation of a privately financed plan for the rapidly growing region encompassing all of the counties of Long Island and those elsewhere within a two-hour rail commuting distance of New York City.[16] In some respects both independent, nongovernmental advocacy groups—RPAA and RPA—were like-minded. They addressed some of the same social issues, and RPA welcomed RPAA's Radburn Plan and other similarly innovative planning approaches, including the creation of the motor parkways that made MacKaye's vision of the "townless highway" a reality. But Norton was part of a business and philanthropic elite that maintained, when possible, a close working relationship with government. Understandably, RPA pragmatically focused on the physical, economic, social, and legal surveys that would guide political and corporate decision makers and help direct existing market forces toward coherent, rational ends. Accepting as natural and inevitable the enlargement of the metropolis beyond the boundaries of the five-borough polity of Greater New York that had been created in 1898, RPA hoped to transform the city and its several surrounding counties into a better planned multigovernmental regional entity.

Although British garden-city planner Thomas Adams brought his professional experience in England to the Regional Plan Committee, the precursor of RPA, New York City's course of metropolitan regional growth was already set. Its destiny was to remain that of a commercial and entertainment core with vertically expanding skyscrapers and horizontally extending rings of commuter suburbs, none true garden cities. Unwin's Hampstead Gardens, which Norton had praised as "the best subdivision of suburban land ever I saw or heard of,"[17] was a leafy dormitory within the London metropolis, and it, rather than Letchworth, served as a paradigm for New York's expansion. Adams must have realized that the complexity and size of New York City and its environs, as well as the region's political fragmentation, militated against a British reformist approach to planning. In the United States, growth might be guided by infrastructure improvements and the reservation of certain lands for public use, but it would be practically impossible to mandate and locate new town construction within the context of a free-market real-estate economy.

Thomas Adams and Frederick Law Olmsted, Jr., a principal consultant on the plan, proposed that the task be addressed by individual team members taking responsibility for different geographical areas. Adams was chosen to chair and coordinate the activities of this Advisory Group as they tackled in their regional sectors problems of land use and population density; subdivision, land development, and housing; circulation and communication; and open spaces and recreation. Informing their inquiry was the work of the directors of the Economic, Legal, and Social Surveys. Olmsted was responsible for the important sector comprising all of beach-rich Long Island, and Adams made Westchester and Fairfield Counties his purview.

Adams tried to synthesize the many studies, a task made difficult by the application of each man's independent approach and individual set of planning values to his particular sector. Altogether, however, their reports set forth the need for regional zoning, including agricultural zoning; for circumferential roads rather than more radial transportation corridors; for centralization of some activities and decentralization of others according to their functional requirements; for increased parkland, especially along the waterfront; and for reservation of land for airport sites.